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Periodic Defect Engineering of Iron–Nitrogen–Carbon Catalysts for Nitrate Electroreduction to Ammonia

Runxi Zhu, Yanyang Qin, Tiantian Wu, Shujiang Ding, and Yaqiong Su*

Iron–nitrogen–carbon single atom catalyst (SAC) is regarded as one of the promising electrocatalysts for NO_3^- reduction reaction (NO_3RR) to NH_3 due to its high activity and selectivity. However, synergistic effects of topological defects and FeN_4 active moiety in Fe–N–C SAC have rarely been investigated. By performing density functional theory (DFT) calculations, 13 defective graphene FeN_4 with 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects are constructed, yielding 585-68- FeN_4 with optimal NO_3RR catalytic activity, high selectivity, as well as robust anti-dissolution stability. The high NO_3RR activity on 585-68- FeN_4 is well explained by the high valence state of Fe center as well as asymmetric charge distribution on FeN_4 moiety influenced by 5- and 8-member rings. This DFT work provides theoretical guidance for engineering NO_3RR performance of iron–nitrogen–carbon catalysts by modulating periodic topological defects.

1. Introduction

Ammonia (NH_3), as a source of nitrogen for fertilizer and a potential carbon-free energy carrier, is an indispensable chemical for modern industrial development.^[1] The industrial-scale NH_3 synthesis is still dominated by Haber–Bosch process operating under harsh conditions with nitrogen and methane-reformed hydrogen as feedstocks, which however is not only an energy- and capital-intensive approach but also suffers from extremely low NH_3 yields.^[2] In recent years, ambient electrocatalytic N_2 reduction reaction has emerged as an appealing alternative, which however suffers from unsatisfactory Faradaic efficiency and low NH_3 yields due to extremely stable triple $\text{N}\equiv\text{N}$ bond (941 kJ mol^{-1}) and low N_2 solubility.^[3] Therefore, using N_2 as the N

source for electrochemical NH_3 synthesis to achieve considerable yields and wider application remains challenging.

Nitrate (NO_3^-), alternative to the inert N_2 , is considered as an attractive N source for electrochemical synthesis of NH_3 due to the much weaker $\text{N}=\text{O}$ bond (204 kJ mol^{-1}) and $\text{N}-\text{O}$ bond (176 kJ mol^{-1}) than $\text{N}\equiv\text{N}$ bond (941 kJ mol^{-1}).^[4] Notably, NO_3^- is one of the most widespread water pollutants due to the discharge of industrial wastewater and chemical fertilizers, posing potential threats to human health.^[5] Therefore, electrocatalytic NO_3^- reduction reaction is regarded as a promising method of removing NO_3^- contaminants from wastewater. Furthermore, NO_3^- -reduction-reaction (NO_3RR)-based cathode and metal anode can be assembled as a metal– NO_3^- battery

for electricity production. Recently, Zhang et al. reported that the iron-doped nickel phosphide ($\text{Fe}/\text{Ni}_2\text{P}$) catalyst exhibits high NH_3 Faradaic efficiency (FE) and NO_3^- conversion efficiency.^[6] And a Zn–nitrate battery is further assembled with a power density of 3.25 mW cm^{-2} and a FE of 85.0% for NH_3 production. Evidently, the NO_3^- -to- NH_3 conversion can not only deliver both electricity and NH_3 products, but also remove NO_3^- contaminants from wastewater.

The NO_3^- -to- NH_3 conversion involves nine proton and eight electron transfers and is accompanied by many possible reaction pathways and byproducts (NO_2 , NO , N_2O , N_2 , NH_2OH , etc.). As a predominant competition, NO_3^- reduction to N_2 pathway involves a N–N coupling step, where two neighboring active sites are possibly needed such as Rh- or Cu-based metal catalysts.^[7] In order to improve the selectivity toward NH_3 , dispersing transition metals into isolated single atoms can effectively suppress N–N coupling. For example, Wu et al. reported excellent activity and selectivity of Fe single atomic sites deposited on a standard glassy carbon electrode for NO_3^- reduction to NH_3 with a maximal ammonia Faradaic efficiency of $\approx 75\%$ and a yield rate of up to $\approx 20\,000\,\mu\text{g h}^{-1}\text{ mg}_{\text{cat}}^{-1}$.^[8] In addition, FeN_4 is identified as the active site for NO_3RR on atomically dispersed Fe–N–C catalyst via density functional theory calculations. Nevertheless, the essential synthetic pyrolysis process of Fe–N–C catalysts may induce undesirable structures such as numerous topological defects, metal– N_x ($x = 1-4$) and metal–C in the carbon matrix.

It is noteworthy that the fabrication of a perfect single-layer graphene with absolutely 100% hexagonal lattice is very challenging because graphene produced by any method contains some specific defects or defects in graphene may be inherent.

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In addition, it is feasible to introduce specific defects artificially in controlled manner (irradiation or chemical treatments) to achieve the desired properties.^[9] In summary, various types of defects in graphene make it possible to tailor the local properties of graphene, such as mechanical, electronic, and magnetic properties.^[10] Some defects in graphene are well-known and have been experimentally observed via transmission electron microscopy (TEM), such as Stone–Wales (SW) defect or 5-8-5 divacancy defect.^[11] A SW defect (also known as 5775 defect) is a crystallographic defect which is formed by an in-plane 90° rotation of the neighboring C–C pairs relative to the midpoint of their bond.^[10b] In this way, after the rotation of C–C pairs in perfect graphene, four hexagons are converted into two 5-member rings and two 7-member rings. A 5-8-5 divacancy defect is formed by the removal of the neighboring C–C pairs, after which double vacancy is formed and reconstructed, resulting in two 5-member rings and one 8-member ring labeled the 5-8-5 defect.^[12] Likewise, A 4-8-4 defect is formed by the continuous removal of the multiple neighboring C–C pairs.^[13]

The defect engineering is recognized as an effective method to promote the electrocatalytic performance of carbon materials.^[14] For example, Jia et al. reported that defects derived by the removal of N-doped atoms from graphene are demonstrated, both experimentally and theoretically, to be effective for oxygen reduction reaction, oxygen evolution reaction (OER), and hydrogen evolution reaction (HER).^[15] Various structural defects (5-, 7-, and 8-member rings) with different combinations such as 585, 75585, and 5775 were observed via TEM. They confirmed that the topological defects at the edge as active sites can significantly enhance the catalytic activities. In addition, Zhang et al. demonstrated both experimentally and theoretically that the graphene defects (5775 defect or divacancy) trap atomic Ni species (aNi) inside to form an integrity (aNi@defect) as the active site toward HER and OER, which shows the synergistic effects of graphene defects and aNi for boosting the HER and OER performances.^[16] As mentioned above, atomically dispersed Fe–N–C single atom catalyst exhibits excellent NO₃RR performance. The synthetic pyrolysis process of Fe–N–C may induce numerous defects on the graphene or around the FeN₄ site. However, either FeN₄ site or defect is explored separately, and the synergetic effects between them is rarely investigated.

In this work, we provide theoretical insights into the effects of periodically topological defects on FeN₄ active site for NO₃RR by means of density functional theory calculations. First, three types of defective graphene with 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects are constructed as the substrate model, and FeN₄ moiety is anchored on topological line defect forming 13 kinds of defective graphene FeN₄ (DG-FeN₄) moieties. Also, NO₃RR performance on pristine graphene FeN₄ (pristine FeN₄) is investigated, where the first hydrogenation step is identified as the potential-determining step (PDS) with a $\Delta G_{\max}$ of 0.41 eV. Among 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄, 8 kinds of DG-FeN₄ are able to reduce the energy barrier of PDS, exhibiting more excellent NO₃RR electrocatalytic activity than pristine FeN₄. Notably, 585-68-FeN₄ presents the optimal NO₃RR catalytic performance, with a $\Delta G_{\max}$ value as low as 0.22 eV. Furthermore, we evaluate the competition between NO₃RR and HER on 8 kinds of DG-FeN₄ via the comparison of $\Delta G(^*NO_3)$ versus $\Delta G(^*H)$ and $\Delta G_{\max}$ of NO₃RR versus $\Delta G(^*H)$, yielding 585-68-FeN₄ with high selectivity as well as activity. Anti-

dissolution stability diagrams as a function of pH and potential on pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄ at different Fe²⁺ concentrations are plotted, showing that 585-68-FeN₄ presents a broader anti-dissolution region than pristine FeN₄. Differential charge density and Bader charge analysis calculations were conducted to investigate the electron transfer and redistribution between Fe and N affected by different topological defects. It is proved that the high NO₃RR activity on 585-68-FeN₄ is ascribed to high valence state of Fe and asymmetric charge distribution on FeN₄ moiety.

2. Results and Discussion

2.1. Structure and Stability

As shown in Figure 1a–c, 3 types of defective graphene with 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects were constructed as the substrate model. Furthermore, we calculated the density of states (DOS) of pristine graphene, DG-585, DG-484, and DG-5775, as shown in Figure S1 (Supporting Information). It can be seen that DG-585, DG-484, and DG-5775 possess increased DOS values than pristine graphene near the Fermi level, corresponding to their enhanced metallic conductivity.^[17] Figure S2 (Supporting Information) plots the partial electron densities (PEDs) near the Fermi level for pristine graphene, DG-585, DG-484, and DG-5775, respectively. Apparently, each carbon atom in 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects shows a much larger charge distribution perpendicular to the plane. To anchor Fe single atom, the 2 adjacent carbon atoms were removed and the 4 nearest-neighbored carbon atoms were replaced with N atoms. Considering the shape and position of the carbon ring, it is observed in Figure 1a that there are 4 ways to remove 2 adjacent carbon atoms in 585-defective graphene, denoted by 585-55, 585-56, 585-58, and 585-68, respectively. Similarly, Figure 1b shows that there are 4 ways to remove 2 adjacent carbon atoms in 484-defective graphene, denoted by 484-46, 484-48, 484-68-1, and 484-68-2, respectively. As shown in Figure 1c, there are 5 ways to remove 2 adjacent carbon atoms in 5775-defective graphene, denoted by 5775-56, 5775-57-1, 5775-57-2, 5775-67, and 5775-77, respectively. As a result, 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄ moieties were obtained. Figure 1d displays the optimized structures of 585-55-FeN₄, 484-46-FeN₄, and 5775-56-FeN₄. The optimized structures of pristine FeN₄ and the remaining 10 kinds of DG-FeN₄ are shown in Figures S3–S5 (Supporting Information).

To evaluate the stabilities of Fe single atom catalysts (SACs) in different graphene substrates, the binding energies (E_b) between Fe single atom and the adjacent 4 N atoms were calculated, as shown in Figure 1e. E_b is below zero in the range from –0.99 to –4.09 eV (Table S1, Supporting Information), indicating that Fe single atoms can be stably embedded in different graphene substrates and form strong coordination bonds with the adjacent 4 N atoms. In addition, we also examine the formation energies of all structures, as shown in Figure 1e. It can be seen that only 5775-56 (2.12 eV) and 5775-57-1 (1.72 eV) possess higher formation energies than pristine FeN₄ (1.71 eV), indicating that the remaining 11 kinds of DG-FeN₄ can be synthesized easier than pristine FeN₄ in the experiment.

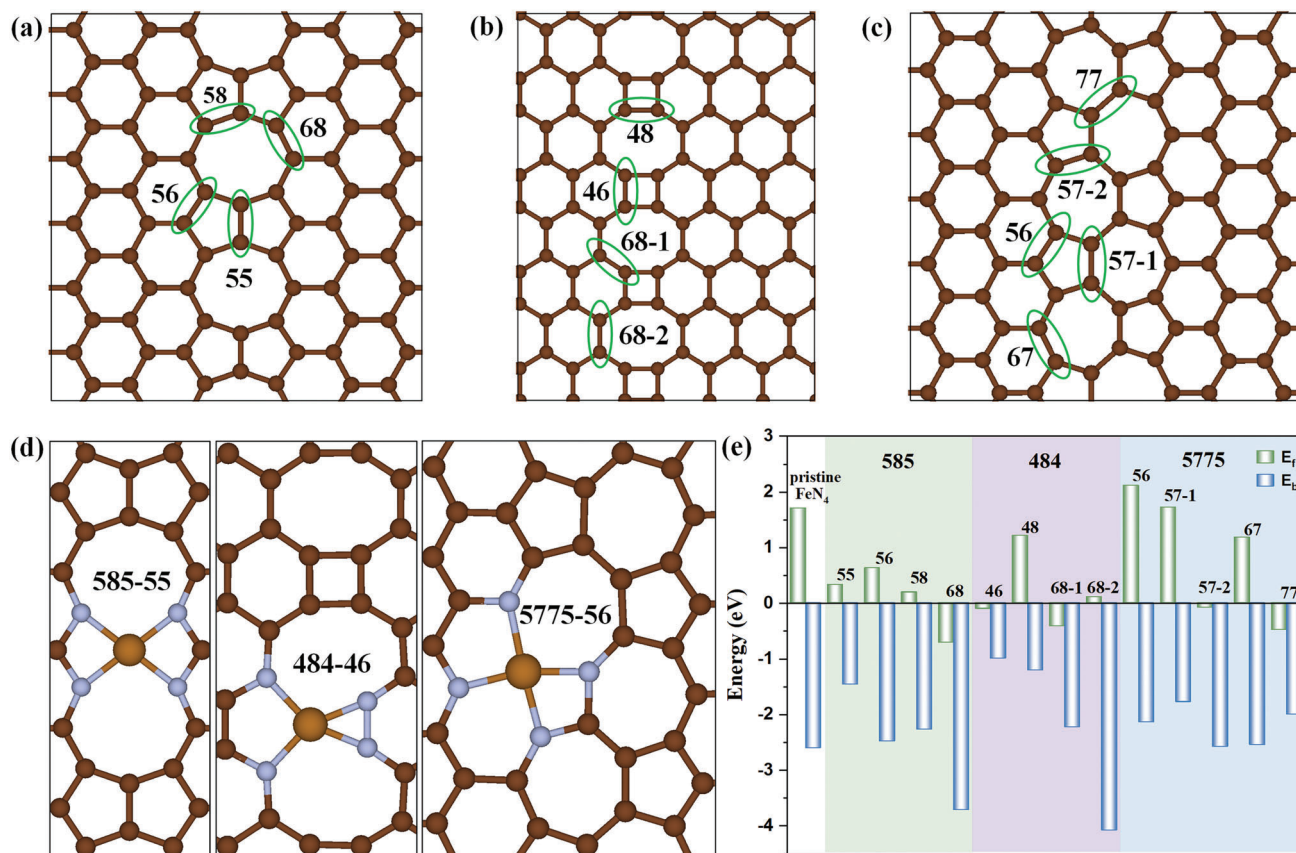


Figure 1. Structure and stability of pristine graphene FeN₄ and defective graphene FeN₄. The top views of optimized structure of a) 585-defective graphene, b) 484-defective graphene, c) 5775-defective graphene, and d) 585-55-FeN₄, 484-46-FeN₄, and 5775-56-FeN₄. Dark brown sphere: carbon; blue sphere: nitrogen; light brown sphere: iron. e) The binding energies (E_b) and formation energies (E_{form}) of pristine graphene FeN₄ and 13 kinds of defective graphene FeN₄.

2.2. NO₃RR Activity on Fe SACs

The conversion of NO₃[−] to NH₃ ($\text{NO}_3^- + 9\text{H}^+ + 8\text{e}^- \rightarrow \text{NH}_3 + 3\text{H}_2\text{O}$) is accompanied by nine protons and eight electrons. After structure optimization, NO₃RR intermediates are all preferentially adsorbed on Fe single atom, as shown in **Figure 2**.

The initial step in NO₃RR process is the adsorption of NO₃[−], which plays a key role in the whole catalytic reaction. Figure S6 (Supporting Information) depicts two possible adsorption configurations of NO₃[−] adsorbed on Fe single atom, namely 1-O and 2-O patterns. It is noted that 2-O pattern converts into 1-O pattern after structure optimization, indicating that 1-O

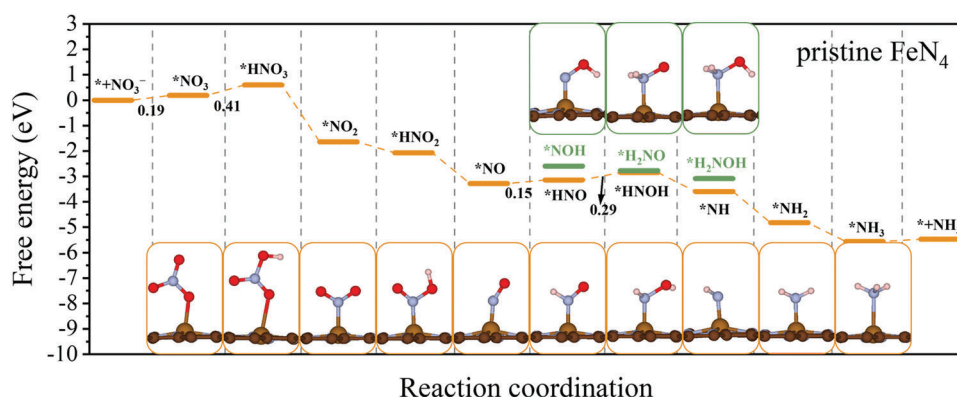


Figure 2. NO₃RR catalytic performance on pristine FeN₄. The Gibbs free energy diagrams for NO₃RR at 300 K when pH = 0, U = 0 V on the surfaces of pristine FeN₄. The insets denote the optimized structures of NO₃RR intermediates. Dark brown sphere: carbon; blue sphere: nitrogen; light brown sphere: iron; red sphere: oxygen; white sphere: hydrogen.

pattern is a more favorable adsorption configuration. To simplify the computation and find out the most suitable pathway on FeN₄, three possible adsorption configurations and the adsorption free energy of *NO₂ and *NO are calculated and listed in Figures S7 and S8 (Supporting Information), namely N-end, O-end, and NO-side patterns. It is observed in Figure S7 (Supporting Information) that NO-side pattern of *NO₂ converts into N-end pattern after structure optimization, and N-end pattern possesses a lower adsorption free energy of −1.68 eV than that of O-end pattern (−1.46 eV). Likewise, in Figure S8 (Supporting Information), NO-side pattern of *NO converts into N-end pattern after structure optimization, and N-end pattern possesses a lower adsorption free energy of −1.91 eV than that of O-end pattern (−0.56 eV). Therefore, N-end pattern is the most stable and favorable adsorption configuration for both *NO₂ and *NO. In the subsequent reaction pathway, we will merely take N-end pattern into account. The Gibbs free energy diagrams of NO₃RR on pristine FeN₄ are displayed in Figure 2, where the reaction with the maximum ΔG ($\Delta G_{\max}$) is PDS. And the corresponding values of Gibbs free energy are listed in Table S2 (Supporting Information). The initial step is the adsorption of NO₃[−], with a ΔG of 0.19 eV. Subsequently, *NO₃ is hydrogenated by (H⁺ + e[−]) pair to form *HNO₃ intermediate, which is the potential-determining step for pristine FeN₄ with a $\Delta G_{\max}$ of 0.41 eV. In the following hydrogenation steps, *HNO₃ goes through a successive exothermal process to form *NO₂, *HNO₂, and *NO with ΔG of −2.24, −0.43, and −1.21 eV. When *NO is hydrogenated, it can form *HNO (ΔG = 0.15 eV) or *NOH (ΔG = 0.69 eV), demonstrating that *HNO is thermodynamically favorable. Therefore, we merely consider the hydrogenation of *HNO. Next, *HNO is attacked by H proton to form *HNOH with a ΔG of 0.29 eV, which is lower than that of *H₂NO (ΔG = 0.36 eV). *HNOH is hydrogenated to form *NH or *H₂NOH, and it is observed in Figure 2 that *NH is thermodynamically more favorable than *H₂NOH. The yellow line in Figure 2 denotes the minimum energy pathway (MEP), in which *HNO, *HNOH, and *NH (*NO → *HNO → *HNOH → *NH) are thermodynamically more favorable than the other intermediates. In the subsequent steps (*NH → *NH₂ → *NH₃), H proton consecutively attacks intermediates to form *NH₂ and *NH₃. Besides, the desorption of *NO₂ and *NO is very difficult, as indicated by the large desorption energy barriers of 1.79 and 1.45 eV, which are much higher than the energy barriers of the hydrogenation process. In other words, both *NO₂ and *NO will be further hydrogenated rather than desorbed.

Based on MEP on pristine FeN₄ mentioned above, it is evident that the reactions of *NO₃ → *HNO₃, *NO → *HNO, and *HNO → *HNOH are all uphill steps. In other words, the ΔG values of these reactions are positive, indicating that they are thermodynamically endothermal processes. We refer to the above three reactions as key steps that will influence the PDS on FeN₄ active site. In order to elucidate the effects of topological defects on NO₃RR activity, we first examined the NO₃RR performance on DG-FeN₄ via three key steps, and the corresponding ΔG values of three key steps on 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄ are listed in Table S3 (Supporting Information). Our calculation results (Table S3, Supporting Information) indicate that the $\Delta G_{\max}$ values of 585-55-FeN₄ (0.45 eV), 484-46-FeN₄ (0.59 eV), 484-48-FeN₄ (0.51 eV), 5775-57-1-FeN₄ (0.60 eV), and 5775-67-FeN₄ (0.45 eV) are higher

than that of pristine FeN₄ (0.41 eV), suggesting that these DG-FeN₄ are not conducive to improving NO₃RR performance. Furthermore, the Gibbs free energy diagrams of NO₃RR on the remaining 8 kinds of DG-FeN₄ were depicted in Figure 3. One can see that the PDS of 585-58-FeN₄, 484-68-2-FeN₄, 5775-56-FeN₄, and 5775-77-FeN₄ is *NO₃ → *HNO₃ with $\Delta G_{\max}$ values of 0.29, 0.32, 0.37, and 0.34 eV, respectively, which is agreement with the PDS of pristine FeN₄. Besides, the PDS of 585-56-FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄ is *NO → *HNO with $\Delta G_{\max}$ values of 0.27 and 0.22 eV. On 484-68-1-FeN₄ and 5775-57-2-FeN₄, the PDS is *HNO → *HNOH with $\Delta G_{\max}$ values of 0.39 and 0.37 eV. Obviously, 585-68-FeN₄ exhibits optimum NO₃RR electrocatalytic activity among 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄. In comparison to pristine FeN₄, the $\Delta G_{\max}$ value of 585-68-FeN₄ is decreased by 0.19 eV.

2.3. Electrocatalytic Selectivity

During NO₃RR process, H₂ produced from HER is another byproduct that should be suppressed in order to improve the NH₃ Faraday efficiency.^[18] We therefore evaluate the competition between NO₃RR and HER on eight DG-FeN₄. In order to suppress HER and achieve a high selectivity, the adsorption Gibbs free energy of *NO₃ should be more negative than that of a H atom. To show the reaction selectivity directly, $\Delta G(*NO_3)$ versus $\Delta G(*H)$ and $\Delta G_{\max}$ of NO₃RR versus $\Delta G(*H)$ on eight DG-FeN₄ are plotted in Figure 4. It is observed that the structures shown in green region in Figure 4a exhibit $\Delta G(*NO_3) < \Delta G(*H)$, resulting in the preferential adsorption of *NO₃ on Fe single atom than *H and correspondingly a high selectivity for NO₃RR toward NH₃ synthesis. Conversely, 585-56-FeN₄ in white region in Figure 4a indicates a poor selectivity for NO₃RR, whereas the remaining 7 DG-FeN₄ exhibit a high selectivity for NO₃RR except for 585-56-FeN₄. Considering a stricter criterion, we also make a comparison between $\Delta G_{\max}$ of NO₃RR and $\Delta G(*H)$, as illustrated in Figure 4b. Similarly, the structures (585-58-FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄) shown in green region in Figure 4b exhibit $\Delta G_{\max}$ of NO₃RR < $\Delta G(*H)$, guaranteeing effective inhibition of HER under the limiting potential (U_L) of NO₃RR ($U_L = \Delta G_{\max}/e$). To sum up, 585-68-FeN₄ exhibits the most excellent NO₃RR electrocatalytic activity as well as a high selectivity.

2.4. Anti-Dissolution Stability of FeN₄

Demetalation, through dissolution of Fe single atom at the center of FeN₄ active moieties, is considered as one of the most common degradation mechanisms for Fe–N–C catalysts, especially in acidic environments.^[19] To assess the anti-dissolution stability of FeN₄ active moieties, we depicted anti-dissolution stability diagrams of pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄, as shown in Figure 5, in which an equilibrium line can be drawn for Equations (17a)–(17e) ($n = 0-4$) separating the pH-potential space showing where the FeN₄C structure is more stable than the dissolved Fe²⁺ (gray region in Figure 5). For a given set of temperature (300 K) and Fe²⁺ concentration (10^{−9} M) in Figure 5a, the line of $n = 0$ (horizontal line in Figure 5a, Equation (17a)) represents a purely potential-mediated dissolution reaction. In other words, at potentials below +0.63 V, the FeN₄C structure keeps

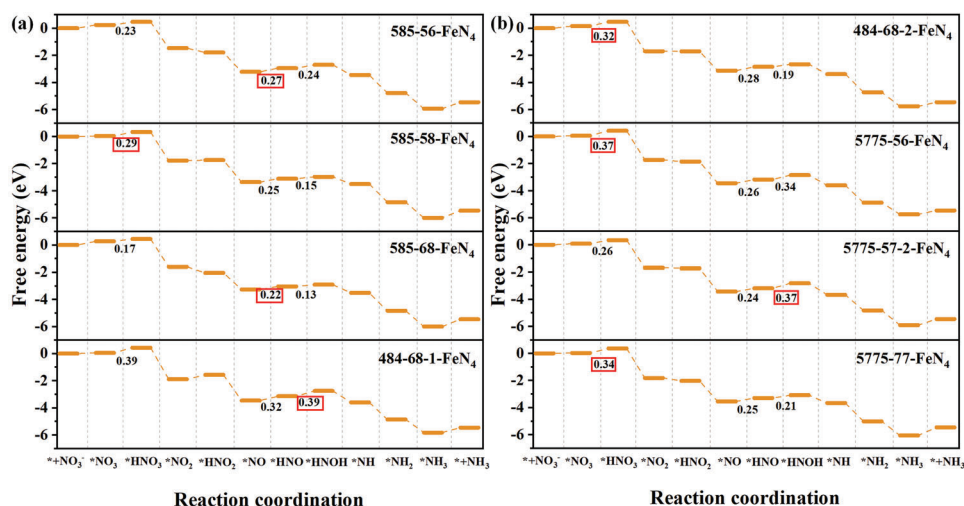


Figure 3. NO₃ RR catalytic performance on defective graphene FeN₄. a,b) The Gibbs free energy diagrams for NO₃ RR at 300 K when pH = 0, U = 0 V on the surfaces of defective graphene FeN₄.

stable against dissolution to Fe²⁺, whereas above +0.63 V, the FeN₄C structure is not thermodynamically stable and dissolution to Fe²⁺ will occur. The $n = 2$ line (vertical line in Figure 5a, Equation (17c)) represents a purely pH-mediated dissolution reaction. At pH values smaller than 11.4, dissolution to Fe²⁺ will take place and at pH values greater than 11.4, the FeN₄C structure is stable against dissolution to Fe²⁺. For the line of $n = 1$ (Equation (17b) where electrons are products), the slope of this line is positive, and below this line, the FeN₄C structure is stable. For the line of $n = 3$ or 4 (Equations (17d) and (17e) where electrons are products), the slopes of these lines are negative, and above these lines, the FeN₄C structure is stable. As a result, an anti-dissolution region (gray region) is constructed where FeN₄C structure keep stable against dissolution to Fe²⁺. As the concentration of Fe²⁺ increases from 10⁻⁹ to 10⁻⁶ M, as illustrated in Figure 5b, the threshold value of potential is increasing to +0.72 V and the threshold value of pH is decreasing to 9.9, leading to an enlarged anti-dissolution region. Likewise, when the concentration of Fe²⁺ increases to 1 M, as shown in Figure 5c, the threshold values of potential and pH change to +0.89 V and 6.9, further

rendering an enlarged anti-dissolution region. Comparing pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄, it is observed that 585-68-FeN₄ consistently maintains a broader anti-dissolution region than pristine FeN₄ at the same Fe²⁺ concentration. Specifically, when Fe²⁺ concentration equals 10⁻⁹, 10⁻⁶, and 1 M, the threshold values of potential and pH are +1.18 V and 6.9, +1.27 V and 6.2, +1.45 V and 3.2, respectively. In conclusion, 585-68-FeN₄ presents a more robust anti-dissolution stability than pristine FeN₄. In addition, we also carried out the ab initio molecular dynamics simulations to confirm the dynamic stability of pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄ (Figure S9, Supporting Information). The results show that the atoms in these systems vibrate near the initial position and the system energy remains steady throughout the simulation period of 10 ps.

2.5. NO₃ RR Activity Origin

In order to further elucidate the origin of high NO₃ RR activity on 585-68-FeN₄ and the influence of 5- and 8-member rings on the structure–activity relationship between the electronic structure

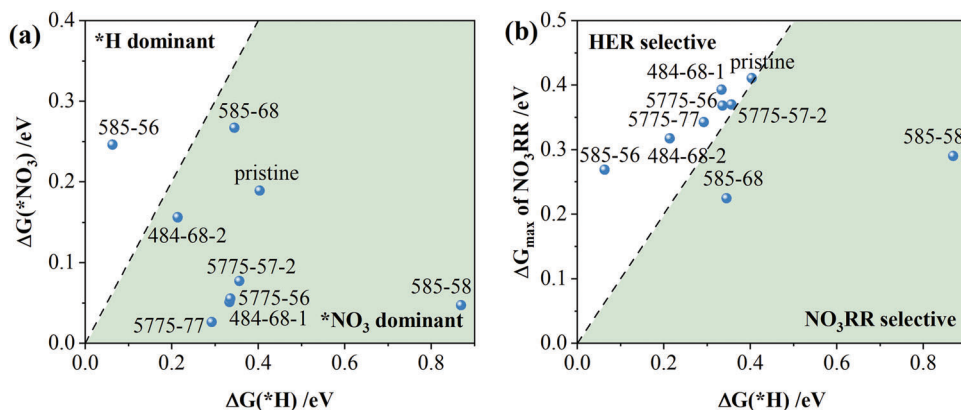


Figure 4. Electrocatalytic selectivity between NO₃ RR and HER. a) Adsorption free energy of *NO₃ $\Delta G(*NO_3)$ versus adsorption free energy of *H $\Delta G(*H)$. b) The maximum ΔG ($\Delta G_{\max}$) of NO₃ RR versus $\Delta G(*H)$. The green region represents high selectivity toward NO₃ RR.

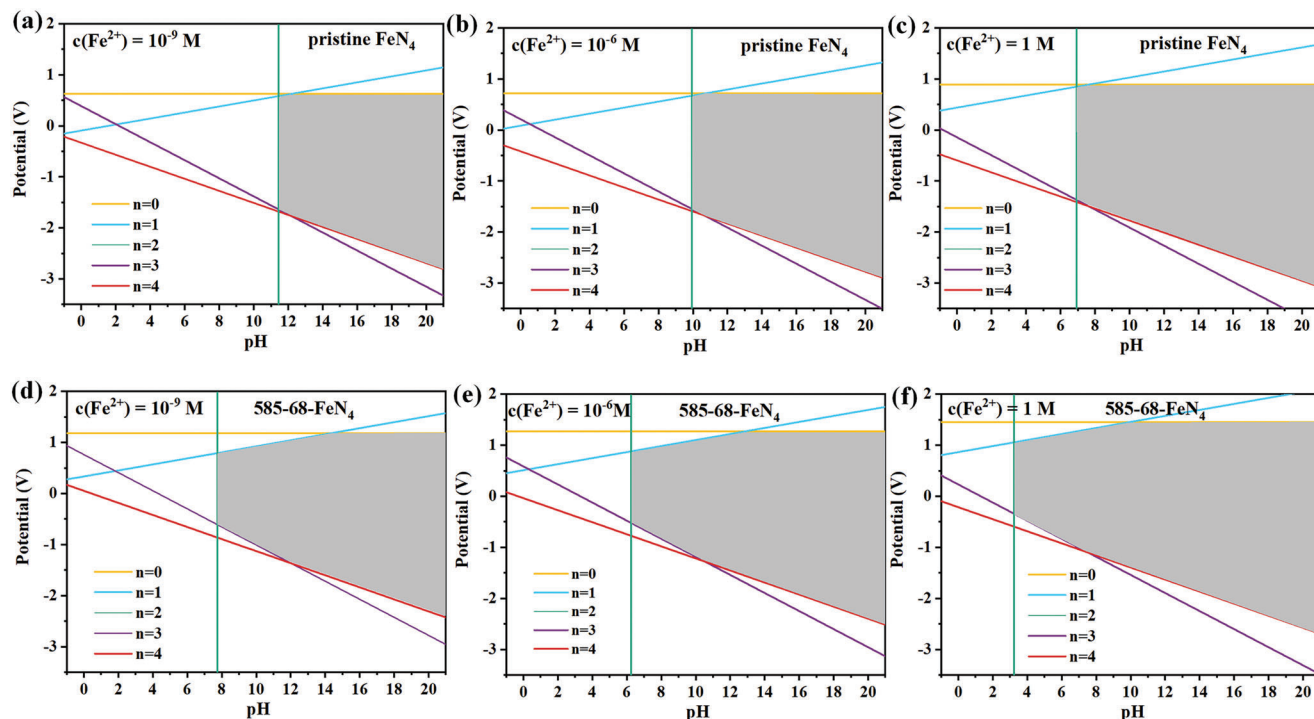


Figure 5. Anti-dissolution stability. Anti-dissolution stability diagrams of a–c) pristine FeN₄ and d–f) 585-68-FeN₄ as a function of pH and potential at 300 K and Fe²⁺ concentrations of 10⁻⁹, 10⁻⁶, and 1 M. The gray region indicates the anti-dissolution region of FeN₄ against dissolution to Fe²⁺ for all considered reactions ($n = 0-4$).

and the catalytic activity, the differential charge density and Bader charge analysis calculations were conducted to investigate the electron transfer and redistribution between Fe and N affected by different topological defects. Bader charge calculations show that the valence state of Fe active center in pristine FeN₄, 585-55-FeN₄, 585-56-FeN₄, and 585-68-FeN₄ is +0.952, +0.830, +1.236, and +1.245, respectively. It is noted that, as displayed in Figure 6a, the linear relationship for $\Delta G(^*NO_3)$ versus the valence state of Fe is found on the abovementioned 4 FeN₄ moieties, where $\Delta G(^*NO_3)$ values are gradually increasing (weakened adsorption) as the valence state of Fe increases, which can be expressed in the formula of $\Delta G(^*NO_3) = 0.19|\Delta q| + 0.02$ with $R^2 = 0.93$. The PDS of 585-55-FeN₄, 585-56-FeN₄, and 585-68-FeN₄ is $*NO \rightarrow *HNO$ with $\Delta G_{\max}$ values of 0.45, 0.27, and 0.22 eV, whereas the PDS of pristine FeN₄ is $*NO_3 \rightarrow *HNO_3$ with a $\Delta G_{\max}$ value of 0.41 eV. It is found in Figure 6b that the $\Delta G_{\max}$ values are decreasing (enhanced activity) as the valence state of Fe increases, which can be expressed by $\Delta G_{\max} = -0.52|\Delta q| + 0.89$ with $R^2 = 0.97$. It can therefore be deduced that the high valence state of Fe is conducive to decreasing $\Delta G_{\max}$ values and further enhancing NO₃RR activity. Correspondingly, the linear relationship between $\Delta G_{\max}$ and $\Delta G(^*NO_3)$ can be expressed as $\Delta G_{\max} = -2.64\Delta G(^*NO_3) + 0.92$ with $R^2 = 0.99$, as shown in Figure 6c. The differential charge density depicted in Figure 6d shows the effect of the topological defects on the charge redistribution of the FeN₄ moieties in pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄. A significant charge depletion (blue region) can be visualized above and below the Fe center in 585-68-FeN₄, which is consistent with the higher positive valence state of Fe (+1.245) in 585-68-FeN₄ than that of pristine FeN₄ (+0.952). In

addition, in pristine FeN₄, the valence state of N1 (+0.963) is close to that of N3 (+0.992) and N2 (+1.198) is close to N4 (+1.220), exhibiting a high degree of symmetry. However, the valence state of N atoms in 585-68-FeN₄ is +0.808, +1.274, +1.219, and +1.130, indicating that 5- and 8-member rings break the high symmetry of the charge distribution in FeN₄ moiety. As plotted in Figure S10 (Supporting Information), the corresponding cross-sectional views of differential charge density for pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄ indicate that the local charge distribution of pristine FeN₄ is more symmetric and the introduction of 585 line defect breaks the symmetric structure of FeN₄ active moiety and induces the distortion of electronic density. In addition, Figure S11 (Supporting Information) plots the PEDs near the Fermi level for pristine FeN₄ and 585-68-FeN₄. It can be seen that 4 N atoms in pristine FeN₄ possess a more symmetric and uniform charge distribution than 585-68-FeN₄.

3. Conclusions

In summary, a theoretical study on 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄ moieties with 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects for NO₃RR is systematically conducted via density functional theory (DFT) calculations. Regulating FeN₄ active moiety by tailoring the topological defects helps us screen out the topological-defect structures with enhanced NO₃RR activity and find out the structure–activity relationship between electronic structure and catalytic activity. The first hydrogenation step is identified as the potential-determining step of pristine FeN₄ with a $\Delta G_{\max}$ of 0.41 eV. Among 13 kinds of DG-FeN₄, we found that 8 kinds of DG-FeN₄ are able to reduce

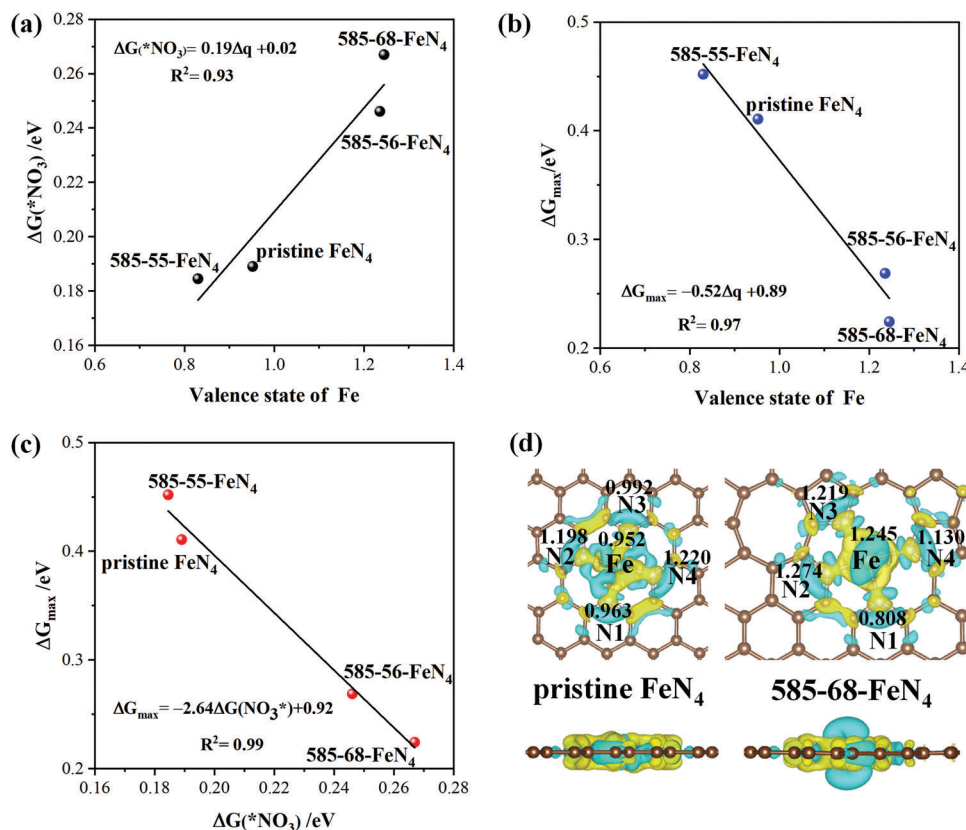


Figure 6. Electronic property analysis. Scaling relationship of a) $\Delta G(*NO_3)$ versus the valence state of Fe, b) ΔG_{max} versus the valence state of Fe, and c) ΔG_{max} versus $\Delta G(*NO_3)$ on pristine FeN_4 , 585-55- FeN_4 , 585-56- FeN_4 , and 585-68- FeN_4 . d) Differential charge density of pristine FeN_4 and 585-68- FeN_4 with charge accumulation and depletion regions represented in yellow and blue, respectively.

the energy barrier of PDS, exhibiting more excellent NO_3RR activity than pristine FeN_4 . Notably, 585-68- FeN_4 presents the optimal NO_3RR catalytic performance, with a ΔG_{max} value as low as 0.22 eV. In addition to the high NO_3RR activity on 585-68- FeN_4 , we also demonstrate that 585-68- FeN_4 presents a high selectivity against HER by comparing $\Delta G(*NO_3)$ versus $\Delta G(*H)$ and ΔG_{max} of NO_3RR versus $\Delta G(*H)$. Besides, our anti-dissolution stability diagrams demonstrate a broader anti-dissolution region and more robust anti-dissolution stability on 585-68- FeN_4 than pristine FeN_4 .

The effects of 5- and 8-member rings on FeN_4 active moiety are well explained by the variation of the valence state of Fe and charge redistribution on FeN_4 moiety. It is proved that the high NO_3RR activity on 585-68- FeN_4 is ascribed to high valence state of Fe and asymmetric charge distribution on FeN_4 moiety. Our work not only provides theoretical guidance for the modulation of graphene topological defects of Fe–N–C SAC for enhanced NO_3RR , but also sheds light on the synergistic effects of periodically topological defects and FeN_4 active moiety for NO_3RR .

4. Experimental Section

Spin-polarized DFT calculations were carried out via the Vienna ab initio simulation package code to provide insights into the NO_3RR process on pristine FeN_4 and DG- FeN_4 moieties.^[20] The projector augmented wave

method was used to describe the interaction between the ions and the electrons with the frozen-core approximation.^[21] The Kohn–Sham valence states were expanded in a plane-wave basis set with a kinetic cutoff energy of 400 eV. Spin-polarized Perdew–Burke–Ernzerhof exchange-correlation functional within generalized gradient approximation calculations were employed to describe the exchange-correlation interaction.^[22] For the Brillouin zone integration, a Monkhorst–Pack $3 \times 3 \times 1$ mesh was used for structure optimization, while for electronic structure computations, a $5 \times 5 \times 1$ k-points was employed.^[23] Dispersion correction method DFT-D3 with Becke–Johnson damping was used to describe the van der Waals interaction.^[24] The self-consistent field convergence criteria was set at 1×10^{-4} eV. All structures were fully relaxed until forces on each atom were smaller than $0.05 \text{ eV } \text{\AA}^{-1}$. To describe the solvent, implicit solvation was considered, in which the dielectric constant was set as 78.4 for water.^[25]

A 6×6 supercell slab of pristine graphene single layer and three types of defective graphene with 585, 484, and 5775 topological line defects were built as the substrate model. The vacuum gap was set to be 15 Å, which was large enough to avoid interlayer interactions. To anchor Fe single atom, the 2 adjacent carbon atoms were removed and the 4 nearest-neighbor carbon atoms were replaced with N atoms. Eventually, Fe single atom was embedded to construct pristine FeN_4 and 13 types of DG- FeN_4 moieties.

The binding energies were calculated by the following equation

$$E_b = E_{Fe+substrate} - E_{substrate} - E_{Fe} \quad (1)$$

where $E_{Fe+substrate}$ and $E_{substrate}$ represent the total energies of catalysts with or without Fe single atom, respectively. E_{Fe} represents the energy of an Fe single atom.

The formation energies were calculated by the following equation

$$E_{\text{form}} = E_{\text{Fe+substrate}} + 6\mu_{\text{C}} - \mu_{\text{Fe}} - 4\mu_{\text{N}} - E_{\text{substrate}} \quad (2)$$

where $E_{\text{Fe+substrate}}$ denotes the total energy of Fe single metal anchored on pristine graphene or defective graphene. μ_{Fe} is the energy of per Fe metal atom in the bulk metal. μ_{C} and μ_{N} are the chemical potentials of carbon and nitrogen atom, which were defined as the energy of per atom in pristine graphene and nitrogen gas, respectively. $E_{\text{substrate}}$ is the energy of pristine graphene or defective graphene.

Based on the computational hydrogen electrode model, the Gibbs free energy change (ΔG) of NO_3^- RR on pristine FeN_4 and DG- FeN_4 SACs was evaluated by the formula

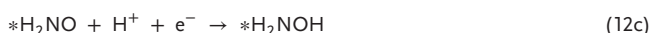
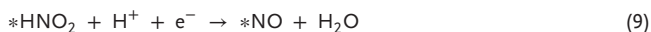
$$\Delta G = \Delta E + \Delta \text{ZPE} - T\Delta S + \Delta G_U + \Delta G_{\text{pH}} + \Delta \int_0^T C_p dT \quad (3)$$

where ΔE is the reaction energy, obtained from DFT calculations, ΔZPE is the zero-point energy change, and $T\Delta S$ is the entropy change upon adsorption. The temperature was set to be 300 K. $\Delta G_U = -neU$, where n is the number of electrons transferred and U is the electrode potential versus the reversible hydrogen electrode. ΔG_{pH} is the correction of the H^+ free energy, which could be evaluated as $\Delta G_{\text{pH}} = 2.303 \times k_B T \times \text{pH}$. In the DFT studies, the value of pH was assumed to be zero. C_p is the constant-pressure heat capacity, and the integration terms were calculated based on the vibrational energies of NO_3^- RR intermediates.

NO_3^- electroreduction to NH_3 involved nine protons and eight electrons transferred. The whole reaction could be summarized as



Involving the intermediates $^*\text{NO}_3$, $^*\text{HNO}_3$, $^*\text{NO}_2$, $^*\text{HNO}_2$, $^*\text{NO}$, $^*\text{NOH}/^*\text{HNO}$, $^*\text{N}/^*\text{HNOH}/^*\text{H}_2\text{NO}$, $^*\text{NH}/^*\text{H}_2\text{NOH}$, $^*\text{NH}_2$, and $^*\text{NH}_3$, the elementary steps of NO_3^- electroreduction to NH_3 were described as below



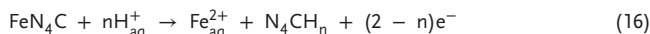
where * denotes the active site on catalyst.

To avoid calculating the energy of charged NO_3^- directly, gaseous $\text{HNO}_3(\text{g})$ was chosen as a reference. Therefore, $\Delta G(^*\text{NO}_3)$ was obtained by

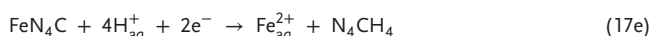
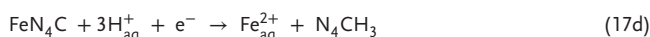
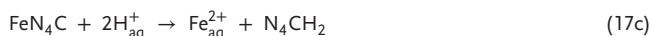
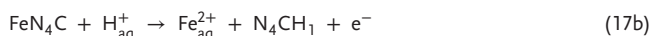
$$\Delta G(^*\text{NO}_3) = G(^*\text{NO}_3) - G(^*) - [G(\text{HNO}_3) - \frac{1}{2}G(\text{H}_2)] + \Delta G_{\text{correct}} \quad (15)$$

where $\Delta G(^*\text{NO}_3)$ is the total Gibbs free energy of NO_3 adsorbed on SAC, and $G(^*)$ is the Gibbs free energy of SAC. $G(\text{HNO}_3)$ and $G(\text{H}_2)$ denote the Gibbs free energy of gaseous HNO_3 and H_2 molecules, respectively. The free energy correction $\Delta G_{\text{correct}}$ was set as 0.392 eV.^[7b,26]

Acid anti-dissolution stability diagrams of FeN_4C were plotted via the method proposed by Holby et al.^[27] For FeN_4C structures considered here, a generalized reaction for dissolution of Fe single atom could be written as follows



When n varied from 0 to 4, it was available to determine a set of dissolution reactions that would define Fe anti-dissolution stability as a function of pH and potential following Equation (17). The corresponding dissolution reactions were outlined in Equations (17a)–(17e)



Supporting Information

Supporting Information is available from the Wiley Online Library or from the author.

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Conflict of Interest

The authors declare no conflict of interest.

Data Availability Statement

The data that support the findings of this study are available in the Supporting Information of this article.

Keywords

density functional theory, electrocatalysts, iron–nitrogen–carbon, nitrate reduction reaction, periodic topological defects

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